PSCI 3350.001 Comparative Politics

Lecture 6: Democratization and the global environment

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Fall 2026

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Today's puzzle

> Can outsiders promote democracy — and how much of a country's regime was ever decided inside its borders at all?

Every chapter so far has explained democracy from the **inside**: history, economics, culture, and next time social structure. Chapter 6 turns the camera around.

Learning goals

By the end of class you should be able to:

1. Describe Huntington's **three waves** and two reverse waves, and say what definition of democracy he is counting
2. Name the causes of the **third wave**, and explain why a global recession produces democratization
3. Distinguish **transformation**, **replacement** and **transplacement**, and say which Huntington prefers
4. Place an authoritarian regime on **Bratton and Van de Walle's** two dimensions and predict its transition
5. State the **clash of civilizations** thesis and two serious objections to it
6. Contrast **indirect** and **direct** colonial rule, and name a cost of each
7. Explain why globalization might *produce* conflict rather than dissolve it
8. List **Enterline and Greig's** four conditions for an imposed democracy to survive

Part 1: Waves of democratization

Huntington's metaphor

Throw a stone into a pond. Democratization arrives in **concentric waves** spreading outward — each followed by a **reverse wave** of contraction.

The waves were driven in part by war and the spread of democratic ideals — ideals "often carried at the barrel of a gun," whether by Napoleon's armies or by the occupation forces of the United States and the West.

Before you accept the count, ask what is being counted. For Huntington, democracy means **the conduct of competitive elections** — Schumpeter's minimalist definition from Chapter 1, not consolidated democracy.

Three waves, two reverses

Built from Ishiyama ch. 6; counts are Huntington's

Wave	Period	Trigger	Count
First wave	1820s → end of WWI	Ideals of the French Revolution of 1789; liberty, equality, brotherhood	**29 democracies** by the end of WWI
First reverse	1920s–1930s	Fascism in Italy, then Germany; coups installing military and royal dictatorships across central and eastern Europe	down to **12**
Second wave	1945 → 1962	The end of the formal global empires; rapid decolonization in Asia and Africa	**36 countries** by 1962
Second reverse	1960–1975	Persistent poverty, political instability, and the machinations of both superpowers during the Cold War	sharply reduced
Third wave	from 1974–75	Portugal, Spain, Greece → Latin America → East Asia → the post-communist world → Africa	ongoing, and contested

What caused the third wave?

The oil shock	Economic boom through the 1950s and 1960s, then the OPEC boycott after the 1973 Yom Kippur War and a major global slowdown
Performance legitimacy collapses	Many authoritarian regimes had bought loyalty with growth — jobs, education, welfare. No growth, no legitimacy (Bergesen 1992)
A new middle class	The boom produced social mobilization and a much larger middle class; the downturn hit it hardest, and it led the demands in Spain and Portugal (Bermeo 1987)
Vatican II	Reforms under Pope Paul II, 1963–65, turned national Catholic churches from defenders of the status quo into opponents of authoritarianism
The West withdraws its cover	After Vietnam and under Carter's human-rights emphasis, the US and the European Community stopped unconditionally backing anti-communist dictatorships
The snowball	Each democratization supplied a model for emulation — a regional diffusion effect (Shin 1994; Starr 1991; Modelski and Perry 1991)

Note: why would a recession produce democratization?

In Ishiyama's account of the third wave, a global economic downturn pushes authoritarian regimes toward democratization because:

- International lenders made democratic reform a condition of credit
- Poorer countries can no longer afford a repressive apparatus
- Regimes that based their legitimacy on economic performance could no longer deliver it, weakening their claim in the eyes of citizens
- Recessions reduce inequality, and lower inequality favours democracy

Performance legitimacy fails. **A regime that bought loyalty with growth has nothing to offer when growth stops** — and the grievance is aimed directly at the regime.

Four sub-waves, four degrees of difficulty

Built from Ishiyama ch. 6

Sub-wave	Cases	Economy	Prior democracy	Other conditions
First	Greece, Portugal, Spain	Developed capitalist market economies	Yes — experiments in the 1920s–30s	Close to democratic Europe; few deep cleavages (Spain aside)
Second	Latin America	Less developed, but basically market economies	Yes, for the most part	Significantly more culturally diverse; transitions drawn out
Third	The former communist world	Centrally planned — a **triple transition**	Little or none	New national identity to build; little civil society after totalitarianism
Fourth	Africa and the Middle East	Often resource-dependent	Rarely	Lacking the posited preconditions, and "cursed" with resources

The "**triple transition**": out of communist authoritarianism, out of central planning, and into a national identity the old ideology had denied.

The resource curse

Hazem Beblawi (1987): states rich in oil become **rentier states** — they generate revenue by selling high-value commodities abroad rather than by taxing citizens.

No taxes, no leverage	Citizens have less incentive to press the government to be responsive
No taxes, no obligation	The state has less incentive to respond, since revenue comes from external rents, not from them
Bribes, not participation	Where the state does respond, it buys the population off with welfare and material allocation rather than broadening participation (Feldman 2003)
Bloated bureaucracy, corruption	State control of resource access makes office a route to wealth (Quinn 2002)

Part 2: How transitions happen

Four actors, two camps

Transitions are shaped by who holds power inside each camp.

Hardliners (regime)	Want to cling to power
Softliners (regime)	Willing to negotiate, particularly to preserve their authority as circumstances change
Radicals (opposition)	Want the immediate replacement of the regime
Moderates (opposition)	Willing to negotiate to keep the transfer of power peaceful

The transition process has an **independent effect** on whether democracy survives — context correlates with democracy, but **the process itself does work of its own** (O'Donnell, Schmitter and Whitehead 1986; Przeworski 1986, 1991).

Huntington's three transitions

Built from Ishiyama ch. 6, after Huntington (1991)

Type	Who leads	Huntington's words
Transformation	The regime — mostly reformers within it	"The elites in power [take] the lead in bringing about democracy" (1991, p. 153)
Replacement	The opposition	"Opposition [takes] the lead … and the authoritarian regime collapses or is overthrown" (p. 154)
Transplacement	Both, by negotiation	"Democratization results largely from joint action by government and opposition group" (p. 156)

Transplacement happens when **neither side is strong enough to dominate**. It succeeds only if the reformers control their hardliners *and* the moderates control their radicals — **two internal fights before the external one**.

Note: which transition does Huntington prefer?

Huntington argues the preferable routes to democracy are:

- Transplacement only, since negotiated settlements are the only durable kind
- Whichever route is fastest, since prolonged transitions invite reversal
- Replacement, because a clean break removes the old elite
- Transformation or transplacement, because replacement brings confrontation, violence and rapid turnover

Transformation **or** transplacement — and *not* replacement. "Stable democracies and near-democracies are likely to result from rather slow evolutionary process than from revolutionary overthrow of existing hegemonies" (Huntington 1984, p. 41).

Kitschelt: two kinds of communism

Herbert Kitschelt (1994) on why post-communist transitions diverged.

	Patrimonial communism	National consensus communism
Rule	Personalist; hierarchical chains of personal dependence between leaders and followers	Contestation and interest articulation permitted
Elite contestation	Low	Some
Bureaucracy	Little rational-legal professionalization	A degree of professionalization
Dissent	Barely tolerated; democratic centralism emphasized	Tolerated in exchange for compliance with the system's basics
Examples	—	Hungary, Poland

: *Built from Ishiyama ch. 6, after Kitschelt (1994)* {tbl-colwidths="[22,39,39]"}

Transitions from **national consensus communism** are likeliest to succeed: enough internal competition had been permitted that the relevant actors were **willing to compromise and negotiate** — that is, to transplace.

Bratton and Van de Walle: Africa's four types

Neo-patrimonial regimes — authority derived not from ideology or institution but from personal connection to "the big man," through networks of patron–client relations.

Built from Ishiyama ch. 6, after Bratton and Van de Walle (1994, 1997)

	Mass participation low	Mass participation encouraged
Elite competition low	**Personalist dictatorship** — Zaire under Mobutu	**Plebiscitary one-party** — Zambia under Kaunda
Elite competition higher	**Military oligarchy** — Nigeria for most of its independence	**Competitive one-party** — Tanzania under Nyerere

A fifth type sits outside the grid: the **settler regimes** — South Africa, Rhodesia — in reality much more like European-dominated colonial regimes, and leaving a very different legacy.

Note: which regime transitions worst?

On Bratton and Van de Walle's account, the **most difficult** transitions occur in countries whose previous regime was a:

- Personalist dictatorship
- Competitive one-party system
- Military oligarchy
- Plebiscitary one-party system

Personalist dictatorship. **The dictator's personal survival is tied to the regime's**, so any reform reads as a direct personal threat — and he is unlikely to countenance change, let alone step down, absent a guarantee of his own safety.

Part 3: A reverse wave?

The clash of civilizations

Huntington's cultural argument is **not** Chapter 4's political culture. Here culture means civilizational world views, indicated by dominant religion.

Zone	What defines it	Implication for democracy
Western Christian	Individual liberties; separation of Church and State; the right to rule derived from the consent of the governed	Most conducive
Orthodox Christian	Fusion of State and Church from the Byzantine inheritance; Moscow as the "Third Rome"; authority from divine right — continued by communist rule claiming the laws of history	Less conducive
Confucian	Less a religion than a social ideology of hierarchy, family-like structures, collective interests over individual rights against the state	Not conducive — though Korea and Taiwan suggest the impediment is weaker than Huntington thought
Islamic	Egalitarianism and popular participation **support** democracy; the absence of separation between secular and religious authority **undermines** it	Contains elements both congenial and uncongenial

Four objections

1. **Overly simplistic** — it ignores significant differences *between* countries inside one civilization
2. **Arbitrary taxonomy** — the classification is especially unconvincing along the borders of civilizations
3. **Wrong causes** — it neglects ideological mobilization and unfulfilled socioeconomic needs, the real drivers of conflict, reducing everything to cultural determinism
4. **Self-fulfilling** — the more people believe conflict is culturally determined, the more likely it becomes

Objection 4 is the unusual one, and worth holding onto: a theory of politics **can help bring about the world it describes**.

Did the wave produce democracies — or hybrids?

Carothers (2002); Diamond (2002); Levitsky and Way (2002); Ottaway (2003): the transitions of the 1990s mostly produced **hybrid** systems — not fully democratic, not fully authoritarian.

- In Africa and Latin America, human rights violations and military interference were widespread enough that observers hesitated to call these regimes democratic
- After the Soviet break-up, regimes holding free and fair elections while retaining authoritarian traits kept multiplying

Most scholars at first treated these as **transitional** — the "**transition paradigm**." That assumption started to break down in the mid-1990s: a growing number of scholars suspected hybrid regimes were **not transitional but remarkably stable**.

Note: what is the transition paradigm?

The "transition paradigm" that Carothers and others came to question was the assumption that:

- Democratization always proceeds in waves
- Regimes that hold elections while retaining authoritarian traits are temporary and will become full democracies
- Every country will eventually democratize if given enough time
- Foreign assistance is necessary for any transition to succeed

That hybrids are a **waypoint**. The suspicion that broke it: these regimes were **not transitional but displayed remarkable stability** — a destination, not a stage.

Part 4: The legacy of colonialism

Does colonial heritage matter at all?

The Eurocentric view	Democracy spread as European values and traditions spread; the colonizer transmitted culture, language, and institutions conducive to democracy (Weiner 1989)
No relationship	Barro (1999); Quainoo (2000)
British colonies specifically	Being a former British colony raises the probability of democracy (Lipset et al. 1993; Clague et al. 2001)

Weiner's (1989) observation. By 1983, every Third World country that emerged from colonial rule after WWII with a population of at least one million — and almost all the smaller ones — *and* a continuous democratic experience was **a former British colony**.

Indirect and direct rule

Khapoya (1998) distinguishes two colonial styles in Africa.

Built from Ishiyama ch. 6, after Khapoya (1998)

	Indirect rule (British)	Direct rule (French, Portuguese, Belgian)
Aim	Not assimilation — share skills, values and culture to let Africans run their own communities; society segregated between natives and whites	The colony as an extension of the mother country; in Algeria, active assimilation
Method	Co-opt the local power structure — kings, chiefs, headmen — by invitation, coercion or bribery	All commands flow from the metropole, enforced by regional governors
Local elites	Expected to enforce laws, collect taxes, buffer between natives and colonial authority	Staffed the colonial state, but trained to *implement* policy, not make it
Benefit	Real experience of self-rule; mimicked British electoral, legislative and judicial institutions	An anti-colonial cooperative ethos across ethnic lines, directed at a common enemy
Cost	Reinforced ethnic and tribal division — some groups arbitrarily privileged over others	Local elites poorly equipped for self-rule at independence

Note: the cost of indirect rule

Indirect rule left British colonies better prepared for self-government. Its principal cost, in Ishiyama's account, was that it:

- Reinforced ethnic and tribal division by arbitrarily privileging some groups over others
- Prevented the growth of a native bureaucratic elite
- Delayed independence relative to French and Belgian colonies
- Left colonies economically dependent on Britain after independence

Ethnic division. Weiner and Huntington's term for where it leads is the **ethnic hegemonic state** — one in which "a single ethnic group has taken control over the state and used its powers to exercise control over others" (1987, p. 35).

Part 5: Globalization

What globalization is, and the optimistic case

Globalization: increasing economic interdependence among the countries of the world, creating a multiplicity of linkages, interconnections and interdependence — a process by which "events, decisions, and activities in one part of the world can come to have significant consequences for individuals and communities in quite distant parts of the globe" (McGrew and Lewis 1995, p. 23).

Baker, Epstein and Pollin (1998) identify three consequences: more international economic interaction; qualitative change in how states operate within an economy; and **less power for states, more for private business and market forces**.

The optimistic case is short and familiar: globalization stimulates market growth and development, development generates wealth, and **wealth is positively related to democracy** — which is Chapter 3's argument, imported.

The pessimistic case

The "**chaos**" or "**primordialist**" perspective (Sadowski): conflict rises as a **backlash against globalization's encroachments on identity**.

Homogenization provokes	A universalizing set of Western values elicits reactions that exalt difference and local particularism — resistance "rooted in an imagined past that never was"
Media erodes	Television and the internet erode traditional values and moral restraints
Movement competes	Falling transport costs move goods *and people*; competition for jobs plus frustrated aspirations breeds resentment and scapegoating
Kotkin (1993)	Globalization breeds a new wave of ethnic awareness — prosperity for some, for others "a throwback to the basest kind of clannishness"
Naisbitt (1994)	A new "tribalism"; telecommunications let ethnic groups coordinate and go it alone, so separatism grows and conflict follows
Chua (2002)	**Market-dominant minorities** control disproportionate wealth; globalization makes them richer while the poorer majority gains little — a catalyst for strife along lines that already existed

Globalization inside the rich democracies

A separate literature asks what globalization does to democracies that already exist. Its answer: it **undermines the Left**.

- Owners of mobile capital can relocate abroad; domestic producers face foreign competition
- More dynamic, competitive and interdependent markets undermine older forms of production, pushing toward **smaller production units** (Turner 1991)
- Decentralized, capital-intensive production means less labour solidarity and weaker organized labour — and so weaker left parties

Social democratic and socialist parties became **more economically conservative** — on workplace regulation, redistributive taxation, and the welfare state (Piazza 2001).

Kitschelt's twist: parties with loose internal structures and weaker union ties adapted; "entrenched" parties with strong labour ties **could not manoeuvre, and lost ground**.

Note: what is a market-dominant minority?

Amy Chua argues globalization is a catalyst for ethnic strife where there is a **market-dominant minority** — that is:

- The foreign investors who come to dominate a liberalizing economy
- A minority that migrated for economic reasons and remains unassimilated
- An ethnic minority that holds political office disproportionately
- An ethnic minority controlling a disproportionate share of the country's wealth, which globalization enriches further while the poorer majority gains little

Disproportionate **wealth**, not office. And note Chua's careful limit: globalization ignites the conflict, **but the lines of conflict already existed**.

Part 6: Imposed democracy

Democracy installed from outside

Imposed democracy: "democratic governments installed by a foreign power in which the foreign power plays an important role in the establishment, promotion, and maintenance of the institutions of government" (Enterline and Greig 2008).

Not new. The Netherlands in the seventeenth century, the United Kingdom in the eighteenth and nineteenth, the United States in the twentieth — each promoted a global ideology and sought to reshape countries in its mould.

Three routes:

- **After defeat in war** — occupation, removal of the government, entirely new institutions: West Germany and Japan; more recently Iraq and Afghanistan
- **Through the colonial process** — the colonial power sets up the regime that governs after independence
- **Covertly** — including support for a *coup d'état*

What they share: the means of governance are established **through the actions and decisions of a foreign power**.

Four conditions — and why they rarely hold

Gills et al. (1993): at best, external intervention produces only nominal "**low-intensity democracies**."

Enterline and Greig (2008) are more conditional. Imposed democracies can survive given:

1. A **large occupation force**
2. A clear message of **sustained, long-term occupation** behind the new state
3. An **ethnically homogeneous** society
4. **Democratic neighbours**

Now read that list against the third and fourth sub-waves — Iraq, Afghanistan. **These conditions do not hold in most of the countries where imposition has been**

Where this leaves the argument

Ishiyama's summing up: external forces **do not determine** whether democracy emerges — but diffusion, globalization and imposition **cannot be discounted**.

Taken together with history, culture, economics and social structure, these external forces powerfully shape what happens inside a country.

But the chapter ends by pointing somewhere else: whether a country ultimately develops along democratic lines depends powerfully on **the institutional choices made at the inception of the democratic experiment**. That is Chapter 7, and the rest of the course.

Today's article: Levitsky and Way

"Linkage versus Leverage" — the natural companion, since Levitsky and Way are among the scholars this chapter credits with naming hybrid regimes.

Leverage	A government's vulnerability to external democratizing pressure — sanctions, conditionality, diplomatic punishment
Linkage	The density of a country's ties to the democratic West — economic, political, social, organizational, communication

Their claim is that **linkage does more work than leverage**. Pressure applied to a weak state can force an election; **dense ties change what domestic actors want and what they can get away with**.

For your dossier

Round 3 — the causal argument and the rival you rejected — was due this session. Chapter 6 supplies the rival most teams forget to consider.

Four things to try this week:

- Ask whether your focal country's regime change was a **transformation, replacement, or transplacement**, and what that predicts about the politics that followed
- Place its previous regime on **Bratton and Van de Walle's** two dimensions, or Kitschelt's pair, and check the prediction against the record
- If it is resource-rich, test the **rentier** mechanism directly: what share of revenue comes from taxation?
- If your argument is entirely domestic, name the external explanation you are rejecting and say why. "I did not think about it" is not a rejection

For next session

Session 7 · October 22 — How do votes become seats and parties?

- **Ishiyama**, Chapter 7, pp. 157–176
- **Bormann and Golder**, "Democratic Electoral Systems around the World, 1946–2020"
- **Quiz 4** at the start of the meeting
- **Group B · Round 3** presentations

Six chapters of background conditions end here. Chapter 7 begins the part of the course where **the variables are things somebody chooses**.